Heritage Values in Site Management
Four Case Studies

Marta de la Torre • Margaret G. H. MacLean • Randall Mason • David Myers

Edited by Marta de la Torre

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The Getty Conservation Institute, Los Angeles

The Getty Conservation Institute

Timothy P. Whalen, *Director*
Jeanne Marie Teutonico, *Associate Director, Field Projects and Sciences*

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PART TWO The Case Studies

Chaco Culture National Historical Park

Marta de la Torre, Margaret G. H. MacLean,

and David Myers

Management Context and History of CCNHP

Management Context

DEPARTMENT OF THE INTERIOR

The National Park Service (NPS) is a federal agency within the United States Department of the Interior. This department, through its various agencies, is responsible for the management of most federal public lands in the United States, which constitute one-third of the total acreage of the country. The agencies that make up the department cover a great deal of ground, literally and figuratively; in addition to the NPS, they include, among others, the Bureau of Land Management, the Fish and Wildlife Service, the Office of Surface Mining Reclamation and Enforcement, and the Bureau of Indian Affairs. The secretary of the interior and the agencies' directors manage the inevitable conflicts resulting from the overlapping mandates and resources for which they are accountable. The secretary and the agency directors are appointed by the U.S. president and generally represent the particular views and philosophy of a political party.

NATIONAL PARK SERVICE

The U.S. Congress created the NPS in 1916 with the mandate to preserve natural and cultural resources of national significance. The founding legislation states that

> the Service shall promote and regulate the use of Federal areas known as national parks, monuments and reservations by such means and measures as conform to the fundamental purpose of the said parks, monuments and reservations, which purpose is to conserve the scenery and the natural and historic objects and the wild life therein, and to provide for the enjoyment of the same in such manner and by such means as will leave them unimpaired for the enjoyment of future generations.[1]

At its founding, the NPS assumed responsibility for twelve existing national parks, nineteen monuments (including Chaco Canyon National Monument), and two reservations. Its mission specified the dual obligation of conserving unimpaired the scenery and the cultural and natural resources, and providing access for their enjoyment. Interpretations of what constitutes conservation, access, and unimpaired resources have created tensions between these obligations at various times during the history of the NPS. Over the years, however, the unimpairment imperative from the NPS mandate has been interpreted by NPS directors and sometimes by secretaries of the interior as giving conservation primacy over access.[2] This position is strongly supported in current NPS management policies.[3]

Located in the States, the District of Columbia, American Samoa, Guam, Puerto Rico, Saipan, and the Virgin Islands, the NPS properties include 56 national parks, 39 national historical parks, 75 national monuments, 19 national reserves and preserves, 78 national historic sites, and 25 national battlefields. More than half of the units of the system are considered to be of cultural or historic significance.

The NPS presently has responsibility for 385 units or places of national significance—natural, historical, and recreational areas—the diversity of which is demonstrated by citing a few examples: Yellowstone National Park, Independence National Historical Park, Mesa Verde National Park, the Vietnam Veterans Memorial, Abraham Lincoln's Birthplace National Historic Site, the Blue Ridge Parkway, Cape Cod National Seashore, and the White House.

In addition to these sites, the NPS oversees programs that serve broad conservation and recreation needs. Examples include the National Register of Historic Places; the National Historic Landmarks Program; the Land and Water Conservation Fund Grants Program; the Historic American Building Survey; the Historic American Engineering Record; the American Battlefield Protection Program; the National Maritime Heritage Grants Program; the Rivers, Trails and Conservation Assistance Program; and the Tribal Heritage Preservation Grants Program.

Over its eighty-six years, the NPS administration has expanded and contracted, as the times have required and as resources have allowed. In the mid-1990s, as part of an effort to streamline the federal government, the NPS

underwent a decentralizing reorganization that reassigned twelve hundred jobs from the headquarters in Washington, D.C., and regional offices to individual parks and specialized service centers.

The mission of the NPS to preserve unimpaired the natural and cultural resources and values of the national park system for the enjoyment, education, and inspiration of this and future generations represents a great deal of responsibility.[4] But, as with many large U.S. government bureaucracies, the actual authority for selecting and implementing management strategies resides in legislation and related procedural documents written to ensure compliance. As NPS policy clarifies, "the management of the national park system and NPS programs is guided by the Constitution [of the United States], public laws, treaties, proclamations, Executive Orders, regulations, and directives of the Secretary of the Interior and the Assistant Secretary for Fish and Wildlife and Parks."[5]

In the current organization, each park or site has a management team headed by a superintendent, who is the principal authority in most decisions regarding that unit. Superintendents report to their respective regional directors, but outside the issuing of certain permits, most park operations are handled locally once the annual budget and activity plans are approved. Superintendents have been compared to ship captains: "others might own the property and determine the cargo, but once away from the dock (or in the field), the captain (or superintendent) makes the decisions."[6]

Description of CCNHP and Its Context

NATURAL CONTEXT

CCNHP is situated in the northwestern part of the state of New Mexico, near the center of the 6.47-million-hectare (25,000-square-mile) San Juan Basin, within the much larger Colorado Plateau. The basin is generally semiarid, typically receiving only 21.6 centimeters (8.5 inches) of precipitation annually, which accounts for the region's sparse vegetation. Summers bring intense but brief thunderstorms with flash floods. Annual temperatures vary widely, with winter lows well below freezing and summer peaks around 38°C (100°F). Year-round, daily temperatures at Chaco Canyon also tend to range widely, rising and falling with the sun, due to an elevation in excess of 1,829 meters (6,000 feet).

The Park today covers approximately 13,760 hectares (34,000 acres). Chaco Canyon itself, which cuts east-west through the Park, is some 91 meters (300 feet) deep and 2.5 kilometers (1.5 miles) wide, bordered by sandstone cliffs to the north and south. Above these cliffs lie mesas dotted with piñon and juniper trees. Grasses and shrubs cover the alluvial canyon bottom, drained by the ephemeral Chaco Wash. At the west end of the Park, Chaco Wash and Escavada Wash join to form the Chaco River.

Figure 2.1. North Mesa. The limited vegetation, temperature extremes, occasional flooding, and gusting winds contribute to active erosion patterns in the landscape. Horizontal sedimentary layers have been carved into colorful plateaus, mesas, buttes, and canyons. Photo: David Myers

From the tops of the mesas, the natural boundaries of the San Juan Basin may be viewed in all directions: Colorado's San Juan and La Plata Mountains to the north, the Chuska Mountains to the west, the Jemez Mountains to the east, and Mount Taylor to the south. Throughout the basin, vast deposits of uranium, coal, natural gas, and oil lie beneath the surface.

CULTURAL CONTEXT

CCNHP is located in a relatively poor and lightly populated area of New Mexico. Native Americans, primarily Navajo, constitute the majority of the residents immediately surrounding the Park. The Pueblo tribes live in areas further east, west, and south. The lands around the Park are used primarily for grazing sheep, cattle, and horses and for industrial extraction and processing of the region's abundant deposits of energy resources.

Intertribal, as well as non-Indian, relations in the Southwest are shaped significantly by the extent of federal and tribal governments' control of land in this area—and by the complexities of land interests in general. Nuances in legalities of land use are often complicated by the opposition of surface and subsurface interests, which are in many cases divided between different parties for one land parcel.[7] Many residents of the Southwest question the

extent of government involvement in land management in the region. In part, they feel that federal control reflects the interests of distant bureaucrats in Washington, D.C., rather than local interests, and that local revenues lost due to the exemption of government land from property taxes are not made up by federal payments and subsidies. In addition, setting aside lands as national parks and under the *Wilderness Act of 1964* is seen as preventing viable economic activities in those areas. Nevertheless, grazing and the industrial extraction of various types of natural resources have long been allowed in other federal lands in the region.

The presence in the region of many Native American reservations, which are among the nation's largest, complicates local and federal land issues. The lands in and around several of these reservations are the subject of long-standing controversies over sovereignty due to sometimes-conflicting treaties between the U.S. government and the tribes. A case in point is a century-old dispute between the Hopi tribe and Navajo Nation over approximately 248,000 hectares (1.8 million acres) of land in the Four Corners region—the meeting point of the states of Arizona, Colorado, New Mexico, and Utah. Complicating and occasionally fueling the land dispute is the unresolved issue of legal control over coal reserves, valued in the billions of dollars. Not surprisingly, this conflict reverberates in management issues at CCNHP.

History of Settlement and Use

Current evidence indicates a broad and relatively continuous habitation of the San Juan Basin during the Paleo-Indian period, roughly between 8,000 and 10,000 years ago.[8] The earliest remains of human habitation in Chaco Canyon date to 7,000 to 2,000 years ago. These early inhabitants apparently were seminomadic hunter-gatherers. Between two and three thousand years ago, inhabitants of the canyon began to establish more-permanent settlements, facilitated by their increasingly sophisticated use of domesticated strains of squash, beans, and corn.

During the 1,300 years of Anasazi,[9] or ancestral Puebloan, culture, architecture, technology, social organization and population distribution continued to evolve. A period of increased precipitation between A.D. 400 and 500 provided for greater ease in growing crops, allowing for the first permanent occupation of Chaco Canyon and a significant population growth in the area. Settlement patterns, including subterranean pit houses and accompanying storage structures, eventually coalesced into small villages. By about A.D. 500, the canyon's inhabitants were building one-story masonry dwellings above ground, organized around central pit houses.

The period from A.D. 700 to 1300, also called the Pueblo period, is associated with what is known as the "Chaco Phenomenon." The core area of Chaco Canyon appears to have served as an administrative, economic, and ceremonial nexus of a culture that dominated what today is known as the Four Corners.

The phases of occupation in Chaco Canyon left behind complex masonry structures known as "great houses," containing hundreds of rooms and dozens of kivas (round structures of varying size) that were much larger in scale than anything previously built in the region (fig. 2.2); their appearance is unique in the Americas. Other features of the Chaco Phenomenon include road alignments (some segments are more than 64 kilometers—40 miles—long) with cut stairways and masonry ramps that lead to more than 150 outlying great houses and settlements. The Chacoans also created and depended on their water control and distribution structures to manage the scant seasonal rains, and they depended on their astronomical knowledge to anticipate calendric cycles. They left petroglyphs that marked solar events, and they appear to have used road and architectural alignments to reflect lunar and stellar events. Excavations of the great houses have revealed seashells, copper bells, and remains of macaws, suggesting trade with peoples of the Pacific Coast and the Gulf of California as

Figure 2.2. Pueblo Bonito seen from the air. Great houses, such as Pueblo Bonito, are unique to Chaco culture. They have large numbers of rectangular and irregular rooms as well as round structures of different sizes, called kivas. The purpose of the kivas is not known with certainty, although it is assumed that they were communal gathering places, perhaps used for ceremonies. Photo: Courtesy National Park Service, Chaco Culture NHP Collection Archives.

well as of Mesoamerica. The Chacoans also traded their intricately decorated coiled pottery and fine turquoise jewelry.

By A.D. 1130, new construction at Chaco had ceased, and by A.D. 1300 most of the population of the canyon had moved away. Over time, Chacoan people migrated to other areas of the region, including, to the north, the Mesa Verde area; to the west and southwest, the Hopi Mesas, the Zuni Mountain area, and the Chuska Mountains; and to the east and southeast, along the Rio Grande.

Archaeologists generally believe that Chaco Canyon was not resettled until the Navajo migrated into the region from the north in the late 1500s or 1600s, although Native American groups assert that the canyon has been in continuous use since Anasazi times.[10] Archaeological evidence shows that Chaco Canyon was used by both Rio Grande Pueblo and Navajo groups, from just before the Pueblo Revolt of 1680 against the Spanish through the mid-nineteenth century. From the end of that period through the first part of the twentieth century, Navajo populated the canyon, establishing seasonal camps, permanent dwellings, plant and mineral gathering areas, and ceremonial sites. After the establishment of Chaco Canyon National Monument in 1907, Navajo families continued to farm and graze there until the NPS initiated a resettlement program in the mid 1930s.

Evolution of Chaco Canyon as a Heritage Site

The first documented interest in Chaco Canyon by European Americans as a place of archaeological significance came in 1849, when the Washington Expedition, a U.S. Army Topographical Engineers reconnaissance detachment, encountered and wrote descriptions of Chacoan sites.[11] Like the earlier Spanish military expeditions of the 1820s, the U.S. Army engineers were met by Navajo who had inhabited the area for almost four hundred years. When first "discovered," the ruins of Chaco Canyon were seen as the abandoned vestiges of a vanished civilization. In spite of this perception, affiliated clans and religious societies of the Hopi of Arizona and the Pueblos of New Mexico claim to have visited the site to honor their ancestral homelands since the time of the emigration of its prehistoric inhabitants in the thirteenth century.[12]

In 1877, the U.S. government's Geological and Geographical Survey of the Territories produced extensive descriptions and maps of the Chacoan sites. The next important documentation of the site came in 1888, when the Bureau of American Ethnology surveyed and photographed the major Chacoan sites for a study of Pueblo architecture. These photographs provide evidence that looting and vandalism of prehistoric remains were already occurring at this early date.

In 1896, relic hunter Richard Wetherill arrived at Chaco after excavating several ancestral Puebloan sites, including some at Mesa Verde, in search of "antiquities." His successes attracted the interest of the wealthy Hyde brothers of New York, who over the next five years collaborated with Wetherill to conduct full-scale excavations at Pueblo Bonito, one of the most prominent of the site's great houses. George H. Pepper of the American Museum of Natural History supervised the excavation work of the Hyde Exploring Expedition, while Wetherill directed a Navajo crew. The primary purpose of the expedition was to gather artifacts for the Hydes, who later donated their collections to the American Museum of Natural History in New York, where they are found today.

By this time, the proliferation of treasure-hunting excavations throughout the Southwest had created great concern among the scientific establishment of the country. Early attempts to protect archaeological sites met strong resistance from western settlers who saw these efforts as one more initiative by the federal government to regulate the use of the land. However, a 1901 federal investigation of the Hyde Exploring Expedition's excavations and the land claims of Richard Wetherill at Chaco Canyon strongly recommended that the U.S. government create a national park to preserve the archaeological sites in the area. The General Land Office responded by putting a stop to the Hyde Expedition's excavations at Pueblo Bonito and by rejecting Wetherill's land claim. Despite these decisions, Wetherill continued to homestead at Chaco Canyon, and he operated a trading post at Pueblo Bonito until his death in 1910.

Eventually, after twenty-five years of concern over damage to the archaeological record, the *Antiquities Act* was signed into law in 1906. The act was designed to protect and regulate the use and care of "historic landmarks, historic and prehistoric structures, and other objects of historic or scientific interest"[13] and "to preserve [their] historic, scientific, commemorative, and cultural values."[14] The new law authorized the creation of national monuments on lands owned or controlled by the federal government by presidential proclamation, without congressional approval, as was (and still is) required for the creation of national parks. The act stipulates that the extension of national monuments is to "be confined to the

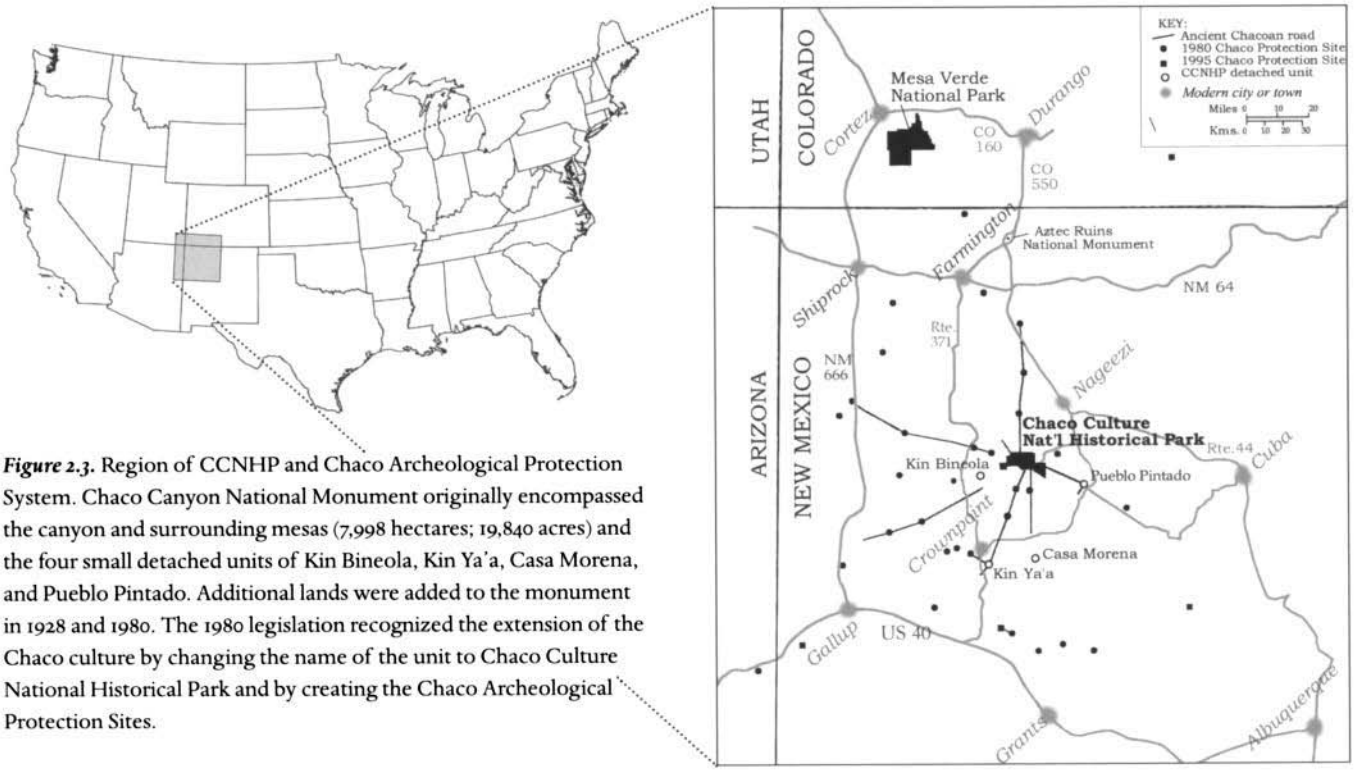

Figure 2.3. Region of CCNHP and Chaco Archeological Protection System. Chaco Canyon National Monument originally encompassed the canyon and surrounding mesas (7,998 hectares; 19,840 acres) and the four small detached units of Kin Bineola, Kin Ya'a, Casa Morena, and Pueblo Pintado. Additional lands were added to the monument in 1928 and 1980. The 1980 legislation recognized the extension of the Chaco culture by changing the name of the unit to Chaco Culture National Historical Park and by creating the Chaco Archeological Protection Sites.

smallest area compatible with the proper care and management of the objects to be protected."[15] In March 1907, President Theodore Roosevelt issued Presidential Proclamation No. 740, establishing Chaco Canyon National Monument.

The new national monument was administered by the General Land Office of the Department of the Interior until 1916, when it came under the administration of the newly founded NPS. In 1920, 461 hectares (1,140 acres) within the Park were technically the property of Navajo families. Over time, some of that land has been acquired by the NPS; today, title to some of these parcels, called *in-holdings*, may be divided among more than 100 descendants of the original titleholder. It is estimated that just over 120 hectares (300 acres) of these lands in the western part of the Park are still grazed and could be mined or developed by their titleholders. About 650 hectares (1,620 acres) of land inside the Park are still held by private individuals. Complicated titles and ownership transactions over time have made it difficult for the NPS to say with any degree of certainty the extent of grazed or privately owned land.[16] While the NPS has an obvious interest in acquiring these lands, it recognizes the challenge involved: "Recent efforts to acquire allotments having only one owner have failed, and acquiring these small tracts will require decades of negotiations for each estate."[17]

During the first eighty years of the Park, both governmental and nongovernmental archaeologists excavated various locations at the site. From 1933 to 1937, Gordon Vivian carried out extensive conservation work at Pueblo Bonito, Chetro Ketl, and Casa Rinconada. A Civilian Conservation Corps (CCC)[18] crew of local Navajo stonemasons initiated repairs in 1937 to many of the large Chacoan structures that were deteriorating after years of exposure to rain, wind, and freeze-thaw cycles as well as years of archaeological excavations. The CCC project planted approximately 100,000 trees throughout the canyon to forestall soil erosion, constructed earthen berms for the purpose of soil conservation, and improved many roads and trails. It began construction of a road to the top of the cliff overlooking Pueblo Bonito, but World War II interrupted the project, which was abandoned in 1941 and never resumed. The conservation unit eventually left the CCC but continued work on the stabilization of ruins as park personnel.

Between 1971 and 1986, the comprehensive and interdisciplinary Chaco Center Project undertook a broad survey of the monument, the examination of previous documentation, and the excavation of a number of sites. Publication of the findings was a key component of the project. The information that resulted has allowed scholars to examine the Chaco Phenomenon from a much

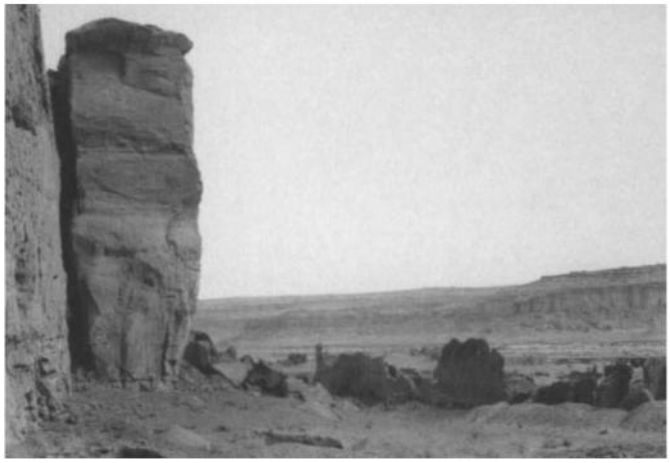

Figure 2.4. Early view of Pueblo Bonito, with Threatening Rock still standing. For almost half a century, Pueblo Bonito was excavated under the shadow of Threatening Rock. Finally, in 1941, the enormous boulder separated from the crumbling mesa and fell onto the great house, destroying some thirty rooms excavated during the two previous decades. Photo: Courtesy Southwest Museum, Los Angeles, Photo # P23826

broader perspective, and their conclusions have greatly influenced the interpretation of the site.[19]

Motivated by new knowledge about the extension of the remains of Chaco culture and by threats from increased exploitation of natural resources in the region, Congress enacted legislation in 1980 adding 5,060 hectares (12,500 acres) to the monument and changing its name to Chaco Culture National Historical Park.[20] The law affirmed the Park's mandate of preservation, interpretation, and research. The legislation also designated thirty-three other sites in the San Juan Basin as Chaco Culture Archeological Protection Sites and provided for the addition of more sites in the future. More than two-thirds of these newly protected sites, which are not part of CCNHP, are in Navajo tribal lands, allotments, or lands used by the tribe for grazing. Subsequently, the *Chacoan Outliers Protection Act of* 1995 added nine new and removed four formerly designated Chaco Culture Archeological Protection Sites, resulting in a total of thirty-nine outliers, extending the area of protected sites beyond the San Juan Basin.

In 1987, the UNESCO World Heritage Committee formally recognized the international importance of CCNHP when it inscribed it in the World Heritage List. The nominating documents present the site as containing "the physical remains of the Chacoans; a unique population of a culture that has been extinct for hundreds of years."[21] Chaco was inscribed in the list under criterion C(iii) of the 1984 World Heritage Convention, which covers properties that "bear a unique or at least exceptional testimony to a civilization which has disappeared" and that meet requirements of authenticity.[22] Five other Chacoan sites—Aztec Ruins National Monument, Casamero, Halfway House, Twin Angels, and Kin Nizhoni—were also included in the World Heritage inscription, highlighting the extension of the Chaco culture.

Appendix A: Time Line during Heritage Status

1250–present Members of affiliated clans and religious societies of the Hopi and the Pueblos of New Mexico have visited Chaco on pilgrimages to honor their ancestral homelands.

1823 The Spanish military expedition led by José Antonio Vizcarra passed through Chaco Canyon and produced the first written account identifying the ruins there.

1849 While in the area of Chaco Canyon, the Washington Expedition, a U.S. Army Topographical Engineers reconnaissance detachment headed by Lt. James H. Simpson, encountered and wrote descriptions of Chacoan sites. The resulting government report included detailed illustrations. This was the first substantial written and graphic report concerning the cultural heritage at Chaco Canyon.

1877 William Henry Jackson, a photographer who was part of the U.S. government's Geological and Geographical Survey of the Territories, led by F. V. Haydn, produced more-extensive descriptions and maps of the Chacoan sites.

1888 Victor and Cosmos Mindeleff of the Bureau of American Ethnology surveyed and photographed the major Chacoan sites for a study of Pueblo architecture. Their photographs included the documentation of looting and vandalism. As the oldest-known photographs, they provide a baseline for measuring the subsequent effects of looting, vandalism, visitation, and natural collapse at the sites.

1896–1901 After excavating several ancestral Puebloan sites in the Four Corners region, including sites at Mesa Verde in 1888, amateur archaeologist and relic hunter Richard Wetherill came to excavate at Chaco Canyon. Wetherill drew the interest of the Hyde brothers of New York to the site. Over the next five years, the Hyde Exploring Expedition conducted full-scale excavations at Pueblo Bonito. George H. Pepper of the American Museum of Natural History in New York supervised the excavations, while Wetherill "led a band of Navajo laborers who did much of the actual digging."[1] Their primary purpose was to accumulate artifacts for the museum's collection. Numerous artifacts were shipped to the museum, where they are located today.

1901 Following an investigation of the Hyde Expedition's excavations at Chaco Canyon, as well as the land claim of Richard Wetherill there, which included Pueblo Bonito, Chetro Ketl, and Pueblo del Arroyo, General Land Office special agent S. J. Holsinger strongly recommended that the U.S. government create a national park to preserve Chacoan sites, and he compiled a report documenting many ruins. The General Land Office responded by suspending the Hyde expedition's excavations at Pueblo Bonito. The Hyde expedition never resumed its archaeological work at Chaco.

1902–10 Despite the denial of Richard Wetherill's land claim in 1902, he continued to homestead at Chaco Canyon and operated a trading post at Pueblo Bonito until his controversial murder in 1910.

1906 As a direct result of controversy over Wetherill's excavations at Chaco Canyon and claims by professionally trained archaeologists that they did not properly account for the site's scientific significance, Congress enacted the *Antiquities Act*. The law—the nation's first to protect antiquities—granted the president the power to establish national monuments.

1907 President Theodore Roosevelt set aside approximately 20,630 acres at Chaco Canyon as Chaco Canyon National Monument under the authority of the *Antiquities Act*. Until 1916, when the National Park Service (NPS) was created, the monument was administered by the federal agencies that had jurisdiction over the land.

1916 Congress passed the *Organic Act*, which provided for the creation of the NPS, which has administered Chaco Canyon National Monument and Chaco Culture National Historical Park since that time.

1921–27 Neil Judd of the National Geographic Society led the excavation of several hundred rooms at Pueblo Bonito, as well as parts of Pueblo del

Arroyo and several smaller sites, for the Smithsonian Institution. A goal of this expedition was to preserve the excavated Pueblo Bonito; extensive conservation treatments were conducted at the site.

1928 After a resurvey of the monument property indicated that the lands mentioned in the original proclamation did not contain all of the described ruins, President Calvin Coolidge issued a second proclamation, Presidential Proclamation 1826, to correct these errors.

1929–41 Edgar Lee Hewett of the School of American Research and Donald D. Brand of the University of New Mexico led excavations at Chetro Ketl and many small Chacoan sites.

1931 Congress enacted legislation (*U.S. Statutes at Large* 46: 1165) that related to several aspects of interest in lands at Chaco. First, it authorized the exchange of private lands within the monument for federal lands elsewhere in New Mexico. In addition, it authorized the driving of livestock across monument lands for owners (and their successors in interest) of certain lands in and adjoining the monument. The act also specified means by which the University of New Mexico and the Museum of New Mexico and/or the School of American Research (located in Santa Fe) could continue to conduct research on their former lands within the monument or, at the discretion of the secretary of the interior, on other lands within the monument.

1933–37 Gordon Vivian carried out extensive conservation work at Pueblo Bonito, Chetro Ketl, and Casa Rinconada.

1937 A Civilian Conservation Corps (CCC) crew of all-Navajo stonemasons initiated repairs to many large excavated Chacoan structures that were deteriorating due to years of exposure to rain, wind, and freeze-thaw cycles. In addition, the CCC built a two-hundred-person camp near Fajada Butte to house workers to provide improvements to the monument.

1941 After a year of heavy rains, Threatening Rock fell onto and destroyed approximately thirty rooms at Pueblo Bonito that had been excavated in the 1920s.

1947 After the last Navajo resident at the monument moved away, the NPS erected fences at its boundaries to exclude livestock and thereby to restore rangeland vegetation.

1949 The University of New Mexico deeded lands in Chaco Canyon National Monument to the NPS in return for continued rights to conduct scientific research at the monument.

1959 As part of the NPS's Mission 66 construction campaign, which extended from 1956 to the agency's 50th anniversary in 1966, the NPS created the monument's Visitor Center, staff housing, and campgrounds.

1969–81 The NPS and the University of New Mexico run the Chaco Center Project, a multidisciplinary research unit established to enhance the understanding of prehistoric Native American cultures of the San Juan Basin. The center carried out fieldwork and publication and experimented with the application of new technologies to research. The center's work identified and appraised over one thousand sites in the Park and adjacent lands and used remote sensing to identify the prehistoric road system that radiates outward from Chaco Canyon to connect numerous outlying Chacoan communities in the region.

1979 The NPS approved the document Chaco Canyon National Monument: General Management Plan/Development Concept Plan (NPS 1979).

1980 Congress enacted Public Law 96-550, which created Chaco Culture National Historical Park, taking the place of Chaco Canyon National Monument. This law contained three general provisions: (1) it added approximately 12,500 acres to the Park; (2) it designated thirty-three outlying sites in the San Juan Basin as Chaco Culture Archeological Protection Sites and provided for the addition of other sites in the future; in addition, it created the Chaco Culture Archeological Protection Site program to jointly manage and protect Chacoan sites located on lands not under the jurisdiction of the NPS; and (3) it authorized a continuing program of archaeological research in the San Juan Basin.

1981 The Chaco Culture Interagency Management Group—composed of the NPS, the Bureau of Land Management, the Bureau of Indian Affairs, the Navajo Nation, the State of New Mexico, and the U.S. Forest Service—was created to provide for development of a joint management plan for formally designated Chacoan outlying sites, as required under Public Law 96-550. The agencies involved in the development of the plan had either jurisdiction over, or interest in, lands containing outlying sites.

1982 The Park superintendent closed access to Fajada Butte, a Native American sacred site, to all visitors except those authorized by permit.

1983 The Chaco Culture Interagency Management Group issued the document Chaco Archeological Protection Site System: Joint Management Plan, which contained guidelines for the identification, preservation, protection, and research of designated Chacoan outlying sites.

1984 Based on public comments and planning and management discussions that followed, the NPS prepared the document Draft General Management Plan/Development Concept Plan/Environmental Assessment, Chaco Culture National Historical Park, New Mexico. The document included a description of proposed actions (general management plan) as well as alternatives for major proposals contained in the plan. In October, this document was released for public and agency consideration. On November 1, a public meeting to receive comments was held in Albuquerque. According to the NPS, "the majority response was in favor of the general management plan proposals as described in the draft document."[2] In the fall of the same year, the NPS also held meetings with federal, state, and local agencies; the Navajo Nation; energy companies; and individuals to review the most important land management and protection proposals contained in the Draft Land Protection Plan, Chaco Culture National Historical Park.

1985 In September, the Southwest Region approved the document General Management Plan/Development Concept Plan/Chaco Culture National Historical Park, New Mexico.

1987 The World Heritage Committee of the United Nations Educational, Scientific, and Cultural Organization (UNESCO) designated Chaco Culture National Historical Park as a World Heritage Site.

1991 Chaco Culture National Historical Park instituted the Chaco American Indian Consultation Committee.

1993 The NPS created the Vanishing Treasures Initiative, which is aimed at providing additional funding for ruins conservation at agency sites in the Southwest, including CCNHP. Since that time, the program has provided significant funding to the Park for carrying out conservation-related work and for hiring conservation-related staff.

1995 Congress enacted the *Chacoan Outliers Protection Act of 1995* (Public Law 104-11). The act added nine new outlying sites and removed four formerly designated outlier sites as Chaco Culture Archeological Protection Sites. These changes increased the total number of outliers to thirty-nine and extended their geographic scope outside the San Juan Basin.

1996 World Monuments Fund named CCNHP and associated archaeological sites in New Mexico to its list of the 100 most endangered monuments.

In response to the urgings of affiliated Native American tribes, the NPS closed both entrances to the great kiva known as Casa Rinconada.

1997 The Natural Resources Defense Council and the National Trust for Historic Preservation issued the report *Reclaiming Our Heritage: What We Need to Do to Preserve America's National Parks*, which included CCNHP as one of several case studies of threatened parks.

The NPS and the University of Colorado—Boulder formed a collaboration aimed at creating a synthesis of the work done by the Chaco Center Project (1969–81) through a series of conferences.

1999 The National Parks Conservation Association named CCNHP to its annual list of the ten most endangered national parks in the United States—citing damage to the resources caused by environmental conditions; insufficient preservation and

Appendix B: Resource Classification

This scoring system was developed to determine the relative importance of resources after the addition of new lands to the Park as a result of the 1980 legislation. Although it was not intended to be used as a ranking of resources, it does seem to indicate the relative value attributed to resources on the basis of cultural affiliations, site type, and date. The information was taken from NPS 1985, 119–29.

Cultural Affiliation

Score 5: Anasazi

Score 4: Archaic, Paleo-Indian, and unknown (probably Anasazi or Archaic)

Score 3: Navajo and unknown (probably Anasazi or Navajo)

Score 2: Historic and unknown (Navajo or historic)

Score 1: Unknown

Site Type

Score 5: Habitation, kiva

Score 4: Hogan, Anasazi road or trail, signaling site, shrine or other ceremonial feature, Anasazi ledge unit, field house, water control feature, Archaic or Paleo-Indian camp

Score 3: Artifact scatter; other—Archaic or Paleo-Indian; camp—Anasazi, Navajo, historic, or unknown; rock art; storage site

Score 2: Baking pit; Anasazi or unknown hearth; Navajo or historic ledge unit; burial; ranch complex

Score 1: Road or trail—Navajo or historic; animal husbandry feature; sweathouse; oven; quarry; cairn; other—Navajo or historic; other—unknown; unknown

Period of Occupation

Score 5: Anasazi

Score 4: Paleo-Indian, Archaic, and Navajo 1750–1900; unknown—Anasazi or Archaic

Score 2: Navajo 1900–45 and unknown; historic pre-1900; unknown—Navajo or historic

Score 1: Unknown

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